GOVERNING FOR DEVELOPMENT

CHINA, GHANA, AND THE CASE FOR TECHNOCRATIC LEADERSHIP, STRATEGIC MEDIA, AND NATIONAL TRANSFORMATION



BY SOLOMON YAW ADEKLO

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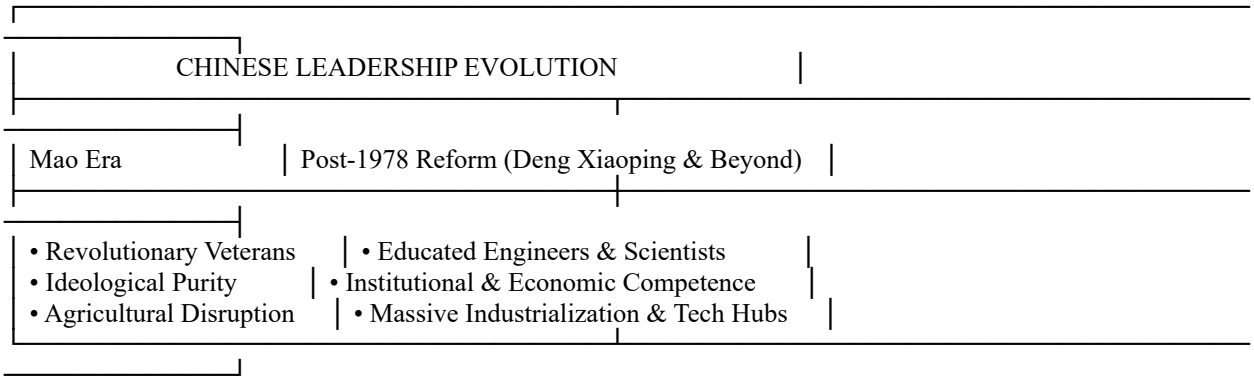
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Chapter 2: Foundations of Power – From Revolutionary Zeal to Institutional Governance

Under Mao Zedong, China's governance was dominated by revolutionary veterans, ideologues, soldiers, and working-class figures who rose through guerrilla warfare and political loyalty rather

than technical expertise. During this era, China remained heavily underdeveloped and impoverished. Governance prioritized ideological purity, leading to severe economic disruption.



Ghana’s post-colonial trajectory inherited a British administrative setup that favored civil service administration, legal framing, and parliamentary debating skills. The political elite came primarily from legal and general social science backgrounds, leaving technical implementation secondary to policy formulation.

Chapter 3: The Technocratic Paradigm Shift – The Post-1978 Pivot

As China launched its "Reform and Opening-up" policy post-1978, Deng Xiaoping replaced old revolutionary cadres with educated scientists and engineers. This created a technocratic leadership model where key figures possessed strong technical backgrounds.

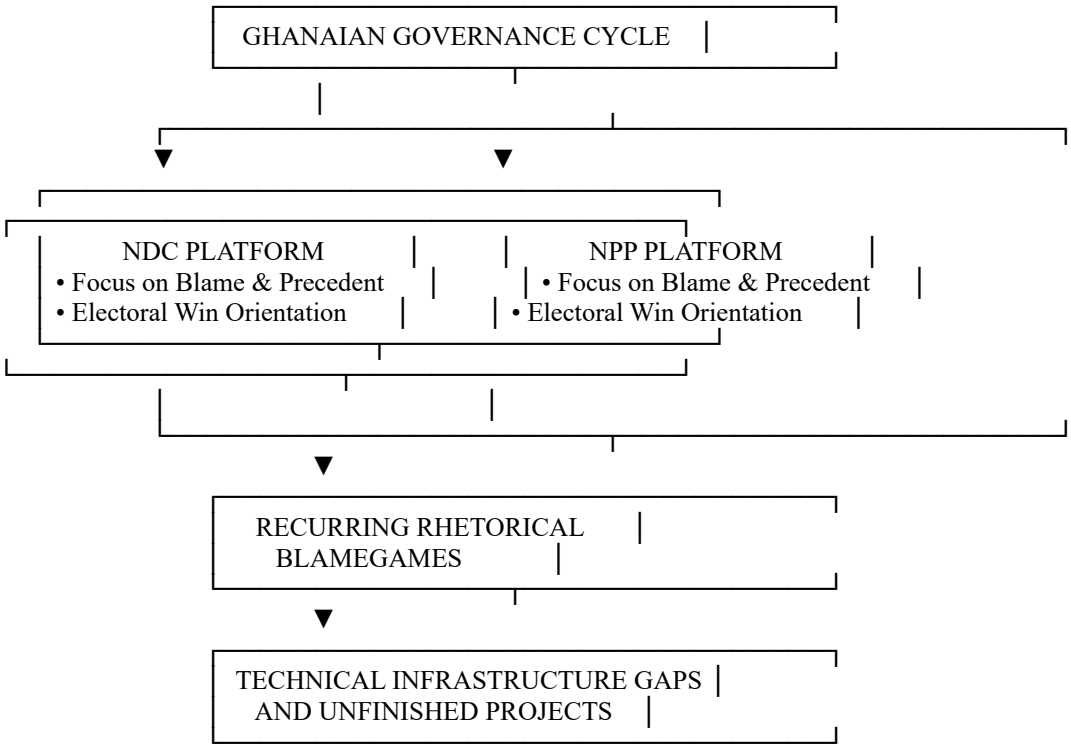
Chinese Leader	Technical Background / Specialization	Major Impact / Era Focus
Jiang Zemin	Electrical Engineering (Shanghai Jiao Tong University)	WTO Accession, Special Economic Zones, Electronics Manufacturing
Hu Jintao	Hydraulic Engineering (Tsinghua University)	Large-scale Mega-projects, Hydropower, Targeted Regional Growth
Xi Jinping	Chemical Engineering (Tsinghua University)	Digital Infrastructure, National AI Strategy, Model Smart Cities

While engineering training was common, elite promotion in China still depended on political loyalty, party hierarchy, and internal consensus. However, the institutional requirement for rigorous quantitative design and execution became a baseline standard for leadership.

Chapter 4: The Ghanaian Legal-Political Complex

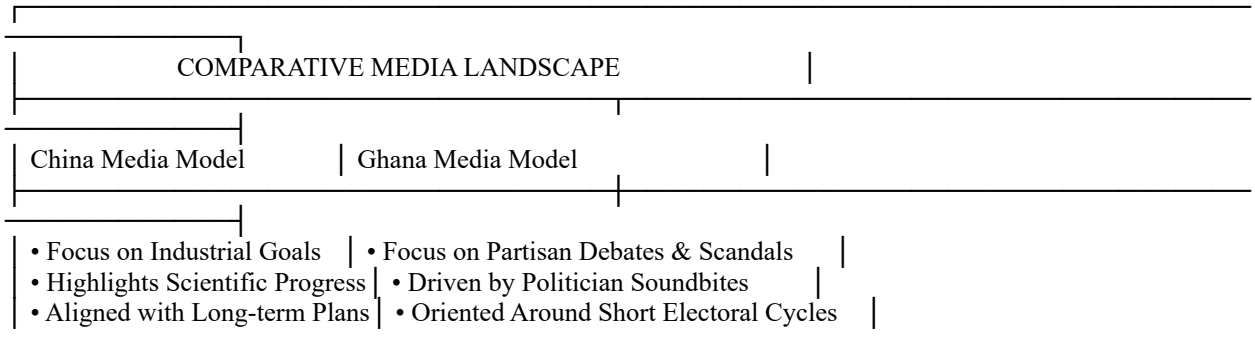
In contrast to China's engineering-led leadership, Ghana's political landscape is dominated by lawyers, litigators, and social scientists.

Graphic Online



Legal education focuses on precedent, interpretation, and courtroom debate. As a result, national governance often resembles a courtroom. Political debate centers on assigning blame—such as the National Democratic Congress (NDC) blaming the New Patriotic Party (NPP) for systemic failures and vice versa—rather than executing technical solutions to bridge technological and infrastructural gaps.

Chapter 5: Media Systems and Public Discourse – Constructive Alignment vs. Political Rhetoric



China’s state media focuses heavily on industrial progress, technological achievements, and economic growth milestones. Ghana’s media landscape is dominated by political debate shows, press conferences, and rival politician commentary. Shifted public attention away from engineering, agriculture, and manufacturing metrics weakens national focus on structural development.

Chapter 6: Concrete Outcomes of Technocratic Leadership – Tech Hubs & AI Model Cities

Technocratic leadership prioritizes long-term physical and digital infrastructure execution over short-term political wins.

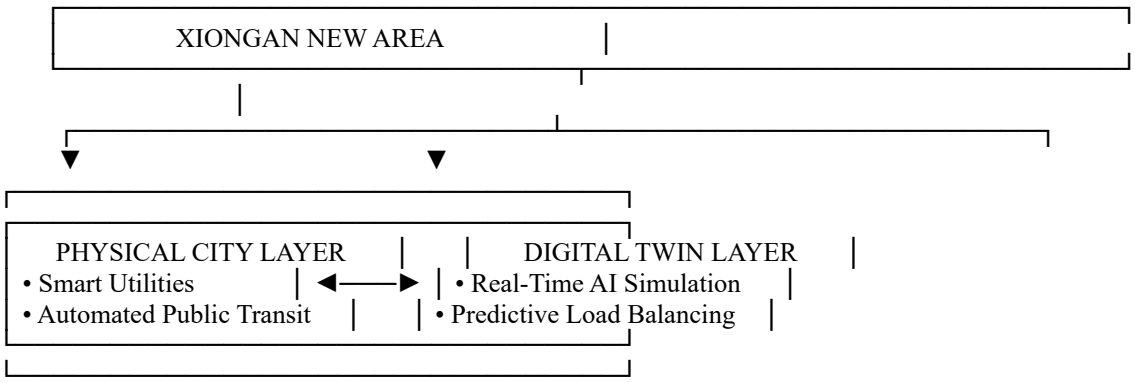
Shenzhen: The Hardware Capital

Transforming from a small fishing village in the late 1970s into China's Silicon Valley, Shenzhen developed a complete electronics manufacturing supply chain. It now houses global tech firms including Huawei, Tencent, and DJI.

Foreign Affairs Forum

Xiongan New Area: Digital Twin Cities

Xiongan was planned with an exact "digital twin" operating in parallel within a cloud computing framework. Engineers use real-time AI simulations to test traffic patterns, electrical grid loads, and water systems prior to physical deployment.



Chapter 7: A Reform Agenda for Ghana – Institutional & Educational Realignment

To address long-standing infrastructural and technological gaps, Ghana can reform its governance by bringing more technical expertise into policy execution:

Graphic Online

1. **Systematic Integration of Technocrats:** Appoint engineers, development economists, and systems planners to direct technical ministries (such as Roads, Energy, Environment, and Communication).
2. **Moving Past Precedent to Innovation:** Shift governance focus from legal procedure to systems design, quantitative evaluation, and modern technology deployment.
3. **National Development Planning Continuity:** Establish non-partisan, legally protected 20- to 30-year infrastructure roadmaps that persist across changing administrations to prevent project abandonment.

Explore related analysis or specific details of this comparative study:

Examine how Ghana can reform its civil service recruitment to favor STEM professionals.

Compare the economic policies of Special Economic Zones (SEZs) in China to Ghana's industrial zones.

Draft a media reform outline focused on promoting developmental journalism in West Africa.

About the Author



Solomon Yaw Adeklo is a Ghanaian software developer with a degree in Information Technology from Valley View University. His technical background has shaped his interest in how technology, institutions, and public policy can work together to address development challenges.

Solomon also studied for a Bachelor of Arts in Integrated Development Studies at the University for Development Studies in Ghana. Although he did not complete the programme, that experience broadened his perspective on development and gave him interdisciplinary insight into the social, economic, and institutional factors that shape national progress. Together, his studies in information technology and development studies inform his interest in the relationship between technical capacity and effective governance.

In *Governing for Development: China, Ghana, and the Case for Technocratic Leadership, Strategic Media, and National Transformation*, Solomon explores how Ghana might strengthen its technical expertise, public institutions, infrastructure planning, and development-focused public discussion. He compares selected aspects of China's experience with Ghana's political and economic context, while recognizing the importance of Ghana's democratic institutions and the differences between the two countries.

Solomon used prompt-engineering tools, including ChatGPT, to help organize ideas, explore themes, shape chapter structures, and draft portions of the manuscript. These tools supported his writing process; the book's subject and guiding perspective reflect his own interests and judgment.

He shares software projects and technical work on GitHub.https://www.github.com/solomonyaw

Book's landing page: https://solomonyaw.github.io/Governing-for-Development/

Preface

Governing for Development examines a question central to Ghana's future: how can political leadership and public institutions turn national ambitions into lasting improvements in people's lives?

China and Ghana offer a compelling comparison, though their histories, political systems, and economic conditions differ greatly. China's reform-era experience highlights the role that technical expertise, long-term planning, infrastructure investment, and industrial policy can play in national transformation. Ghana's experience shows the strengths of constitutional democracy and a plural public sphere, alongside the challenge of sustaining policies and projects through intense political competition and changes of government.

This book makes the case for a stronger technocratic contribution to Ghanaian governance. Engineers, scientists, development planners, economists, and other technical professionals should have greater influence in the agencies and decisions responsible for infrastructure, technology, energy, manufacturing, agriculture, and public services. Their expertise can help governments evaluate options, anticipate risks, coordinate complex systems, and measure results.

That argument is not a claim that technical credentials guarantee good leadership. Nor does it suggest that lawyers and social scientists have little to offer. Legal knowledge, social understanding, public finance, and democratic accountability are essential to effective government. Ghana's task is to bring these forms of expertise together—and to ensure that technical advice has meaningful influence when policy is designed and carried out.

The book also considers the role of public discourse and the media. Ghana's independent and diverse media help citizens question leaders and scrutinize government. Yet partisan exchanges and political disputes can crowd out sustained attention to technical and economic issues. The goal should be a media culture that preserves its freedom to investigate and criticize while giving more space to evidence-based reporting on infrastructure, science, agriculture, industry, and public-service delivery.

China's experience is presented with both its achievements and its limitations in view. Its growth cannot be attributed to technocratic leadership alone; it also involved policy reforms, investment, education, manufacturing, global trade, and the work of businesses and citizens. China's political and media systems differ sharply from Ghana's. Ghana can study Chinese planning and technical capacity without adopting restrictions that would weaken democratic accountability and public scrutiny.

The chapters that follow examine China's historical challenges, its post-1978 reforms, Ghana's political institutions, the media, technology hubs and planned cities, and a practical reform agenda. Throughout, the central concern is how Ghana can strengthen its ability to plan, build, maintain, and improve the systems on which national development depends.

Governing for development requires more than ambitious promises. It requires capable institutions, informed leadership, sustained public investment, honest evaluation, and citizens who can hold decision-makers accountable. This book argues that Ghana can combine democratic government with stronger technical capacity—and make that combination a foundation for national transformation.

Chapter 1: China Before 1900: Strength, Crisis, and Reform

China's history before 1900 is not simply a story of poverty or backwardness. In the eighteenth century, the Qing Empire was one of the world's largest and most powerful states. It had productive agriculture, busy commercial networks, skilled artisans, and an extensive system of civil administration. Yet by the nineteenth century, China faced severe internal pressures and growing foreign intervention. Its leaders struggled to adapt the state to a world being reshaped by industrialization, modern weapons, and expanding global trade.

This chapter examines that transformation and its relevance to Ghana. One important difference from China's later reform era was the place of technical expertise in leadership. Before 1900, China's governing elite was not primarily composed of modern scientists and engineers. Political authority rested largely with the emperor, the imperial court, and officials selected through civil-service examinations that emphasized Confucian learning, literary ability, and administration. China had skilled builders, artisans, military specialists, and practical technical knowledge, but scientific and engineering expertise did not form the organizing principle of national leadership.

A Powerful Empire, but an Uneven Foundation

Under the Qing dynasty, China's eighteenth-century prosperity rested mainly on agriculture, domestic trade, and skilled production. Its large population and extensive markets supported regional commerce, while the civil service helped administer an immense territory. The government had experience in taxation, public order, diplomacy, and managing local affairs. These were substantial strengths.

But strength at the imperial level did not mean that every region or community was prosperous. The population grew rapidly, land pressure increased, and poverty remained widespread. The state's resources and administrative capacity did not expand at the same rate as its responsibilities. A system that had helped govern a powerful agrarian empire faced greater difficulty as social, economic, and international conditions changed.

Meanwhile, industrializing countries were developing new forms of production and military power. Steamships, modern firearms, mechanized factories, and advances in transport and communications shifted the balance of power. China's rulers and officials were trained primarily to preserve and administer the existing political order. They were not selected through a system designed to place engineers, scientists, or industrial planners at the centre of national decision-making.

This did not mean that China lacked technical ability. Its people possessed deep practical knowledge in construction, agriculture, manufacturing, and crafts. The limitation was institutional: technical expertise was not consistently organized, funded, and empowered to lead a coordinated transformation of the economy and state.

The Nineteenth-Century Crisis

During the nineteenth century, the Qing government faced multiple crises at once. Foreign powers sought greater access to Chinese markets and greater influence over Chinese territory and trade. The Opium Wars exposed the military disadvantage China faced against industrialized powers. The resulting treaties imposed commercial concessions and other restrictions on Qing authority.

Foreign pressure was only one part of the crisis. Large uprisings and rebellions weakened the state, disrupted agriculture and trade, and caused enormous loss of life. The Taiping Rebellion, in particular, devastated large areas of the country. The government had to spend heavily on military campaigns while struggling to restore order, raise revenue, and address social distress.

China's defeat by Japan in 1894–95 reinforced the scale of the challenge. Japan had undertaken a rapid programme of state-led modernization after the Meiji Restoration. Its military and industrial development demonstrated that a nearby Asian country could reorganize its institutions and adopt new technologies with greater speed. For Qing China, defeat made the costs of delayed and uneven reform harder to ignore.

These setbacks should not be explained by one factor alone. Foreign intervention, internal conflict, financial pressures, political divisions, population growth, and weaknesses in administration all contributed. Still, China's difficulty in mobilizing scientific and technical capacity across government formed part of the larger problem. The state had not yet built a durable system that could consistently connect technical knowledge to national planning and implementation.

Reform Attempts and Their Limits

Qing officials did recognize that China needed to strengthen itself. Reform efforts included building arsenals and shipyards, acquiring modern weapons, establishing schools, and studying foreign technologies. These initiatives are often associated with the Self-Strengthening Movement, which sought to adopt selected Western methods while preserving the existing political order.

The effort produced some useful institutions and technical capabilities, but it remained limited. Reform was uneven across regions and agencies. Officials disagreed over priorities and the extent of change required. Funding and coordination were insufficient for the scale of modernization China needed. The government adopted technologies in some areas without fully transforming the administrative and political systems required to support them.

This distinction is important for Ghana. Purchasing equipment or announcing infrastructure projects does not by itself create development. A country also needs trained personnel, reliable institutions, effective procurement, long-term financing, maintenance plans, and the ability to

evaluate whether a policy is working. China's reform attempts show that technical modernization is difficult to sustain when it is not supported by wider institutional change.

The Leadership Question

China before 1900 was governed by a class of officials whose authority came from the imperial system and a classical education. That system produced administrators and scholars, but it did not make modern scientific or engineering training a central path to political leadership. The difference with China's later reform period was not simply that engineers suddenly took power. Rather, the state gradually gave greater importance to education, industrial knowledge, technical administration, and measurable economic performance.

Even then, technical credentials did not replace politics. China's later leaders advanced within a party hierarchy, and political loyalty and institutional relationships remained important. The history therefore does not support the idea that engineering degrees alone created China's development. It supports a more careful argument: technical capability can strengthen a state when political institutions give experts meaningful roles and can turn their knowledge into plans that are funded, coordinated, and carried out.

Lessons for Ghana

The comparison with Ghana should be made with care. China's nineteenth-century imperial crisis differs greatly from Ghana's postcolonial and democratic experience. Ghana is not governed by a Qing-style court, and its development challenges have their own causes, including infrastructure gaps, financing pressures, skills shortages, administrative capacity, and political competition. Still, China's experience raises a question relevant to Ghana: does the governing system give enough influence to the people with the technical knowledge needed to solve complex national problems?

Ghanaian politics is often described as dominated by lawyers and social scientists. That description needs evidence and nuance, and professional background alone cannot explain development outcomes. Lawyers can help protect constitutional government and improve public institutions. Social scientists can explain poverty, social change, and public policy. Yet a government responsible for roads, energy, water systems, digital infrastructure, manufacturing, and urban planning also needs engineers, scientists, development economists, project managers, and technical public servants in senior advisory and implementation roles.

The practical lesson is not to exclude lawyers or to reserve political leadership for engineers. It is to build balanced teams and institutions where expertise is heard early, decisions are tested against evidence, and public projects are assessed by their results. Ghana can strengthen technical ministries, professionalize project preparation, create cross-party continuity for priority infrastructure, and publish clear progress measures. It can also improve science and technical education and connect universities and businesses to national development needs.

China’s pre-1900 experience shows how a state with significant strengths can struggle when its institutions do not adapt quickly enough to a changing world. Its later modernization demonstrates the value of technical knowledge, industrial planning, and administrative capacity, while also reminding us that expertise must operate within accountable institutions. For Ghana, the central challenge is to ensure that political debate leads to capable planning and sustained implementation. A country develops not because its leaders hold particular degrees, but because its institutions can bring the right knowledge to bear on real problems and deliver solutions that improve people’s lives.

Chapter 2: Foundations of Power: From Revolutionary Zeal to Institutional Governance

China and Ghana began their modern political journeys under very different conditions. China emerged from revolution, civil war, and foreign invasion as a unified socialist state. Ghana became independent from British colonial rule and inherited many of the administrative structures established under colonialism. These beginnings shaped how each country organized political authority, developed public institutions, and pursued economic change.

This comparison raises a central question for Ghana: how can a country combine political leadership with the technical knowledge needed to plan and deliver development? China's experience offers lessons about expertise, coordination, and continuity. Ghana's experience highlights the value of constitutional government and public debate, as well as the difficulty of sustaining policy through electoral competition. Neither country's path can be explained by the professions of its leaders alone. Institutions, incentives, resources, and historical circumstances also matter.

1.1 Mao's China: Guerrillas, Ideologues, and Underdevelopment

When the People's Republic of China was established in 1949, the country had endured decades of war and political instability. The Qing dynasty had fallen in 1911, but the republic that followed struggled to establish effective national authority. China experienced warlord rule, conflict between the Nationalist government and the Chinese Communist Party (CCP), the Japanese invasion, and a prolonged civil war. The new government inherited widespread poverty, low literacy, limited industrial development, and damaged infrastructure.

The political leadership under Mao Zedong had been shaped by revolution. Many senior figures rose through party organizing, guerrilla warfare, military command, and ideological struggle. They had experience mobilizing people and building a disciplined political movement, but China's leadership was not primarily made up of modern scientists, engineers, or professional development planners. Political advancement depended heavily on participation in the revolution, party loyalty, and standing within the CCP.

This leadership emerged from the conditions of its time. The country was divided, foreign powers had exerted considerable influence, and the new government faced the challenge of consolidating authority across a vast territory. The revolutionary movement promised national unity, social transformation, and an end to foreign domination. It saw centralized political direction and mass mobilization as tools for achieving those aims.

The new state restored national authority and expanded government control over important parts of the economy. It built national institutions and pursued campaigns in education, public health, land reform, and industrial development. These initiatives formed part of the early transformation of the country. China was still poor and predominantly rural, however, and its capacity to provide adequate food, housing, infrastructure, and industrial goods remained limited.

A major weakness was that political campaigns could take precedence over professional judgment and reliable information. Under the Great Leap Forward, leaders set ambitious production targets and pushed rapid changes in agriculture and industry. Pressure to meet those targets contributed to distorted reporting and serious policy failures. The resulting famine caused immense human suffering. During the Cultural Revolution, political conflict disrupted schools, universities, government offices, and professional life, weakening the development and use of expertise.

This period should not be reduced to a simple claim that revolutionary leaders caused underdevelopment because they lacked engineering degrees. China's economic conditions also reflected war, a low industrial base, resource constraints, political choices, and the challenges of governing a vast country. But the experience does show that political commitment cannot substitute for technical knowledge, dependable data, or institutions that allow people to report problems honestly. When criticism is treated as disloyalty and officials are rewarded for meeting unrealistic targets, leaders may lose the information required to make effective decisions.

The broad evolution of Chinese leadership can be summarized as follows, with an important qualification: the change after 1978 was gradual and never meant that political loyalty stopped mattering.

Mao-era emphasis	**Post-1978 reform-era emphasis**
Revolutionary credentials and party service	Greater attention to education and professional experience
Ideological campaigns and political mobilization	Economic modernization and practical policy results
Central direction of production and social life	More experimentation, investment, and market activity
Severe disruptions to agriculture and professional education during major campaigns	Expanded industrialization, infrastructure, and technology development

After Mao's death, Deng Xiaoping and other leaders changed the direction of policy. The reform era gave more weight to economic modernization, education, science, industrial growth, and local experimentation. Officials with technical backgrounds became more visible in leadership.

For example, Jiang Zemin trained in electrical engineering and held roles in industrial administration, while Hu Jintao studied hydraulic engineering and worked in engineering and regional administration.

The shift was significant, but it was not a clean replacement of revolutionaries by technocrats. Political reliability, party hierarchy, performance, and relationships within the CCP continued to influence promotion. Technical credentials became more common in parts of the leadership, yet they did not remove politics from government. The later growth of China also depended on many factors beyond leader qualifications, including agricultural reforms, investment, export manufacturing, education, urbanization, access to foreign markets, and the development of local industry.

China's leadership evolution therefore suggests that technical expertise can improve government's ability to plan and implement complex programmes, especially when supported by capable institutions. It does not prove that engineers automatically govern well. The early Mao period also warns that centralized political power can carry out large programmes while making it difficult to challenge mistakes. The question is not only who has expertise, but whether institutions use that expertise, test assumptions, and correct failures.

1.2 Early Ghana and the Post-Colonial Administrative Inheritance

Ghana's path to independence was different. The country became independent from Britain in 1957 after a nationalist movement that brought together political organizers, workers, farmers, traditional authorities, professionals, and others seeking self-government. Independence created an opportunity to use public institutions to build national unity, expand education, develop infrastructure, and transform the economy.

Ghana inherited a colonial administrative system that included a civil service, courts, police, local administration, and a British-influenced legal framework. These institutions offered a foundation for governing a newly independent country, but they had largely been designed to maintain order, administer the territory, collect revenue, and manage trade. They had not been built to lead broad-based industrialization or provide modern public services throughout the country.

The new Ghanaian state faced a shortage of experienced administrators and technical professionals relative to its ambitions. It needed more engineers, planners, economists, teachers, doctors, scientists, and public managers. Education had produced professionals and civil servants, but national development required a much larger and more diverse pool of skills. Ghanaian governments sought to expand education and infrastructure, establish public enterprises, and promote industry, reflecting a belief that political independence should be accompanied by economic transformation.

The legal and parliamentary traditions inherited from Britain influenced how public affairs were administered and debated. Lawyers and people trained in the social sciences became visible in

political and public life, in part because their skills suited constitutional affairs, public administration, policy argument, and parliamentary work. However, it would be too sweeping to say that Ghana's political elite came primarily from legal and social science backgrounds without specifying the period and providing evidence. Ghana's politicians and public officials have come from varied professional backgrounds, and the composition of leadership changes over time.

The stronger argument is that technical implementation has often received less sustained attention than political promises and policy debate. Large projects require more than a proposal or a legal framework. They need technical designs, feasibility studies, accurate cost estimates, land preparation, procurement oversight, skilled project management, and long-term maintenance. If these functions are weak, a country can have ambitious policies yet struggle to turn them into reliable services and completed infrastructure.

Ghana's political history has also complicated continuity. Coups and changes of government interrupted the country's constitutional development before the Fourth Republic began in 1992. Since then, Ghana has maintained competitive multiparty elections and peaceful transfers of power—important democratic achievements. At the same time, changes in administration can bring changes to priorities, appointments, and projects. When major initiatives are closely identified with one party, a successor government may revise, rebrand, or discontinue them. This can make long-term planning harder.

Partisan argument is a visible feature of Ghanaian politics. The National Democratic Congress (NDC) and the New Patriotic Party (NPP) regularly criticize each other's records, including over public debt, infrastructure, employment, and project delivery. Political criticism can help expose failures and clarify responsibility. It becomes less useful when blame replaces a shared, verifiable account of what was promised, funded, completed, delayed, or maintained.

It would also be inaccurate to blame this pattern on lawyers as a profession. Legal training can support constitutional government, rights, transparent procedures, and public accountability. Social scientists can provide valuable insight into poverty, institutions, communities, and public policy. Engineers and scientists can contribute specialized knowledge, but technical training alone does not guarantee good judgment or integrity. The development challenge is to ensure that decisions are informed by the expertise each problem requires.

For example, transport planning calls for engineers, urban planners, economists, environmental specialists, procurement professionals, and local community knowledge. Energy policy depends on technical analysis alongside finance, regulation, and social considerations. Digital services need expertise in telecommunications, software, cybersecurity, data governance, and education. Political leaders do not need to master every subject, but they should be able to select qualified teams, weigh competing advice, and explain decisions using evidence.

From Political Debate to Institutional Capacity

China's revolutionary period and Ghana's post-colonial experience reveal different institutional strengths and risks. Mao-era China could mobilize resources through a centralized party-state, but political campaigns sometimes overrode professional expertise and reliable reporting. Ghana's plural political system allows citizens to debate and challenge governments, but partisan competition and changing administrations can weaken continuity in long-term programmes.

The lesson for Ghana is not to copy China's one-party political structure or to replace lawyers with engineers. It is to improve the institutions that connect political leadership to technical planning and implementation. Ghana can strengthen professional teams in ministries and agencies, ensure major infrastructure projects receive rigorous preparation, and publish clear information on budgets, contracts, deadlines, progress, and maintenance.

Long-term national priorities can also be agreed across political parties and reviewed regularly by Parliament. Such plans should allow revision when evidence changes, while requiring governments to explain why projects or targets have changed. Independent audits and professional review can help citizens distinguish between genuine constraints, poor planning, and political excuses.

Ultimately, development depends on whether political institutions can preserve knowledge, listen to expertise, coordinate resources, and learn from mistakes. China's history warns against letting ideology suppress accurate information. Ghana's experience highlights the difficulty of maintaining national programmes through changes in government. Together, these lessons point toward a practical goal: a democratic government with stronger technical capacity, more consistent planning, and public accountability for results.

You're right. I included the table, but I didn't explain what each row means or connect the shift clearly to China's development and Ghana's situation. Here is a section you can insert after the discussion of Mao's China.

The Shift in Chinese Leadership

China's leadership changed significantly after 1978. The difference was not simply that revolutionary veterans were replaced by engineers. It was a gradual shift in what the governing system valued: economic results and administrative competence received greater attention alongside party loyalty and political experience. The table summarizes that change, while simplifying a complex history.

Mao era	Post-1978 reform era
Revolutionary veterans and party organizers held central roles	More leaders had university education and professional experience, including in engineering and science
Ideological campaigns often shaped policy and public administration	Economic performance and practical implementation gained prominence
Political campaigns disrupted agriculture, education, and professional work	Industrialization, infrastructure, technology, and economic experimentation expanded

Revolutionary Veterans and Educated Specialists

In the Mao era, many senior leaders had earned their positions through the revolution, military struggle, and years of service within the Communist Party. Their experience helped the new government consolidate authority after decades of conflict. But this leadership was not primarily selected for modern expertise in engineering, science, or economic planning. Political reliability and revolutionary credentials carried great weight.

After 1978, the government placed greater emphasis on education and professional competence. Engineers and scientists became more prominent in parts of the leadership and state administration. Jiang Zemin, for example, trained in electrical engineering and worked in industrial administration. Hu Jintao studied hydraulic engineering and held posts in engineering and regional administration. These careers reflected the growing value placed on technical education and experience.

This did not mean that China became a neutral technocracy. Party membership, political judgment, organizational performance, and relationships within the party continued to shape promotion. The change was that professional expertise and administrative results became more important considerations in a system still governed by the Communist Party.

From Ideological Campaigns to Economic Competence

Under Mao, political campaigns sought to transform society and the economy according to revolutionary goals. At times, ideological priorities took precedence over evidence and professional advice. The Great Leap Forward is a stark example: ambitious production targets and pressure to report success distorted information and contributed to severe economic disruption and famine. The Cultural Revolution further damaged education, technical training, and the operation of professional institutions.

After 1978, leaders placed greater emphasis on economic modernization and practical results. Policy experiments, investment, industrial production, and improvements in living standards

gained prominence. Local governments were often given room to test approaches, and successful practices could be expanded. This greater focus on implementation helped make technical and administrative competence valuable within the governing system.

The shift did not eliminate policy failures or political control. Rather, it changed the priorities used to guide economic policy. It made it more likely that officials would be assessed partly on economic and administrative performance, while party authority remained central.

Agricultural Disruption and Industrial Expansion

The table's reference to agricultural disruption points especially to the disastrous consequences of the Great Leap Forward. Policies driven by political targets and collective campaigns disrupted agricultural production, while unreliable reporting made it harder for leaders to see the true scale of the crisis. This was not merely a technical mistake; it showed how political pressure can prevent accurate information from reaching decision-makers.

The post-1978 period brought major changes to agriculture, industry, and the broader economy. Reforms gave households and local producers greater incentives, while the country opened further to trade and investment. China expanded manufacturing, transport, energy, and urban infrastructure. Special economic zones, including Shenzhen, became places where new policies could be tested and investment encouraged. Over time, these changes helped create technology and manufacturing centers linked to domestic and international markets.

China's industrial and technological growth was not produced by engineering credentials alone. It also depended on policy changes, investment, education, labor, infrastructure, access to foreign markets, and the work of businesses and local governments. Technical expertise helped plan and manage development, but broader institutional and economic changes made sustained expansion possible.

Relevance to Ghana

For Ghana, the table's most useful lesson is that expertise needs to shape government decisions and implementation. Ghana does not need to copy China's political system or limit leadership to people with engineering and science degrees. It can instead ensure that elected leaders have strong multidisciplinary teams and that technical advice has a meaningful role in national planning.

This would mean involving engineers, scientists, development economists, planners, public-finance specialists, and experienced public servants in the design and delivery of major projects. It would also mean judging public initiatives by evidence: whether they were properly prepared, completed on time, delivered within budget, maintained, and useful to the communities they were meant to serve.

China's leadership shift is therefore best understood as a change in governing priorities and capacity. It moved from revolutionary mobilization and ideological campaigns toward greater

emphasis on professional competence, economic results, and industrial development—while retaining party control. For Ghana, the transferable lesson is to give technical knowledge a stronger place in democratic governance and build institutions that can turn well-informed plans into lasting public results.

Chapter 3: The Technocratic Paradigm Shift: The Post-1978 Pivot

China's reforms after 1978 changed the priorities of the state. Under Deng Xiaoping, the government moved away from recurring mass campaigns and placed greater emphasis on economic modernization, education, science, industry, and practical results. This shift also altered the profile of many senior officials: university education and professional experience, including engineering, became more common among those advancing through government.

This was a gradual change, not a moment when Deng simply replaced all revolutionary leaders with scientists and engineers. Political experience and loyalty to the Chinese Communist Party (CCP) remained important. China's later development reflected a combination of political direction, policy experimentation, investment, workforce skills, foreign trade, and technical capacity. The rise of technocrats was one part of that wider transformation.

For Ghana, the central question is how to make technical expertise influential in public decisions while preserving democratic accountability. China's experience offers lessons about planning and implementation, but its political system and constraints on public criticism are not models Ghana needs to copy.

2.1 Deng Xiaoping's Reform Mandate: Elevating Engineers and Scientists

The Third Plenum of the CCP's Eleventh Central Committee in December 1978 marked the start of China's reform and opening-up era. Deng Xiaoping became the leading advocate of a new course that emphasized economic development and modernization. The government restored greater importance to education and professional work, expanded opportunities for technical training, and encouraged policies intended to improve productivity and living standards.

Deng's reform mandate addressed both economic policy and the way the state used expertise. China had suffered from the disruption of the Cultural Revolution, which had weakened universities, research, and professional administration. Rebuilding those institutions was essential to modernizing agriculture, industry, science, and national defense. The government began treating knowledge and technical competence as practical resources for development.

Reform also introduced more room for experimentation. Agricultural changes gave households stronger incentives to raise production. Special economic zones and other local initiatives allowed officials to test policies intended to attract investment and expand trade. Successful practices could be adapted elsewhere. This approach helped connect national goals with local implementation and gave provincial and municipal officials a larger role in economic development.

The resulting transformation was not a single technocratic plan. It was a series of policy changes, experiments, and institutional adjustments. Technical expertise helped officials design infrastructure, manage industrial projects, and assess economic options. But the reforms also relied on farmers, workers, business owners, foreign investors, educators, and local governments. China's economic growth cannot be attributed to the educational backgrounds of its leaders alone.

Deng's approach also involved political continuity. The reforms changed the state's economic priorities without ending CCP rule. Party authority remained central, and political leaders continued to decide which experiments were acceptable and how quickly they would proceed. This combination—economic experimentation under continuing one-party rule—was distinctive to China and cannot simply be transferred to Ghana's multiparty constitutional system.

For Ghana, a relevant lesson is to build the conditions that allow expertise to improve policy. That includes strong technical agencies, reliable data, trained public servants, and project preparation that takes account of costs, risks, and maintenance. Ghana can support policy experimentation through pilot programmes and independent evaluation, while ensuring that decisions remain transparent and subject to public and parliamentary scrutiny.

2.2 The Third and Fourth Generations: Jiang Zemin, Hu Jintao, and Systems Governance

The leadership eras associated with Jiang Zemin and Hu Jintao are often described as periods in which technocratic officials were especially prominent. Many senior leaders had studied engineering or science and had worked in industrial, technical, or administrative posts before reaching the top levels of government.

Jiang Zemin trained in electrical engineering at Shanghai Jiao Tong University and held several industrial and administrative positions. As a senior leader, he presided over a period when China continued market-oriented reforms, expanded manufacturing, developed its electronics sector, and pursued deeper integration into the global economy. China joined the World Trade Organization in 2001 during his leadership era. That milestone followed years of negotiation and reflected a broader strategy of connecting Chinese production and trade to global markets.

Hu Jintao studied hydraulic engineering at Tsinghua University and worked in engineering and regional administration. During his leadership, China continued investing in infrastructure and pursued policies aimed at managing regional development and economic growth. Large infrastructure programmes became a visible feature of the period, although their success depended on the work of ministries, provincial governments, state-owned enterprises, private firms, technical agencies, and workers—not only the backgrounds of top leaders.

These careers illustrate why commentators often associate the reform-era leadership with technocracy. Technical education could give officials familiarity with systems, quantitative

planning, and complex projects. Experience in local government and administration could also help them understand how national policies interacted with regional conditions.

The term “systems governance” describes a government approach that treats economic and social development as interconnected problems. A transport network, for example, affects trade, urban growth, energy demand, public finance, and access to services. Managing such systems calls for coordination among institutions and the ability to plan beyond a single project. Technically trained officials may bring useful habits of analysis, but systems governance also requires political judgment, public administration, financing, and feedback from communities.

A note on Xi Jinping belongs here because the table in the source material includes him as a later comparison. Official biographies state that Xi studied basic organic synthesis in Tsinghua University’s Department of Chemical Engineering in the 1970s. They also record that he later completed an in-service graduate programme in Marxist theory and ideological and political education, earning a Doctor of Law degree. His educational history therefore includes chemical-engineering study, but it is misleading to present him simply as an engineering specialist. His career has been primarily political and administrative.

The table below summarizes the leaders’ educational backgrounds and the broader policy contexts associated with their eras. It should not be read as proof that each leader personally caused the outcomes listed.

Chinese leader	Relevant education and experience	Wider policy context during the leadership era
Jiang Zemin	Studied electrical engineering at Shanghai Jiao Tong University; held industrial and government roles	Continued economic reform, expanded manufacturing and electronics, and China’s 2001 entry into the World Trade Organization
Hu Jintao	Studied hydraulic engineering at Tsinghua University; worked in engineering and regional administration	Continued infrastructure investment and national efforts to manage growth and regional development
Xi Jinping	Studied basic organic synthesis in Tsinghua’s Department of Chemical Engineering; later earned a Doctor of Law degree through an in-service programme	Greater emphasis on digital development, technology policy, and urban modernization under a more centralized leadership

The link between technical education and development is real but should be described carefully. An engineering degree may help a leader understand technical arguments, but it does not by itself create good policy or effective institutions. China's industrial and technological expansion depended on sustained investment, market reforms, education, infrastructure, access to international markets, and the coordination of many levels of government.

2.3 Nuances of Elite Promotion: Competence Meets Party Hierarchy

China's technocratic turn did not remove political considerations from leadership selection. Officials advanced within a party-state. Party membership, political reliability, relationships with senior leaders, work history, organizational performance, and internal decisions all shaped promotion. Technical training became valuable, but it operated alongside party hierarchy rather than replacing it.

This distinction is essential. The emergence of many engineers in leadership roles did not mean that China was governed by independent experts who stood outside politics. Technocrats were party officials, and their authority depended on the political system. Their professional knowledge could influence decisions, but senior party leadership retained control over major priorities.

The promotion system also changed over time. In parts of the reform era, a university education and technical credentials could improve an official's prospects, particularly in government and economic administration. Research on Chinese elite recruitment has found that education and technical training mattered, but that their effects varied across institutions and career paths. Political loyalty and party seniority remained important, especially within the party hierarchy.

Competence itself can be difficult to measure. Officials may be evaluated by economic growth, revenue, investment, infrastructure delivery, or social stability. These measures can encourage effective administration, but they can also create pressure to meet numerical targets at any cost. When local officials are rewarded for rapid growth, they may overstate results, take on excessive debt, overlook environmental harm, or prioritize visible construction over maintenance and public needs. Technical systems require accurate information and honest evaluation to work well.

Centralized coordination can help China mobilize resources for large projects, but it can also limit public debate and make it harder for citizens, journalists, or independent professionals to challenge official decisions. This is one of the important trade-offs in comparing China with Ghana. Ghana's democratic institutions can make policy slower and more contested, but elections, Parliament, independent media, and civil society offer channels for scrutiny and correction.

Ghana's goal should therefore be to combine technical capacity with democratic checks. This means ensuring that ministers and elected officials can draw on qualified professional teams, while Parliament, auditors, journalists, and citizens can examine the evidence and hold decision-

makers responsible. Technical advice should inform decisions, not make them immune from public review.

The main lesson of China's post-1978 shift is not that Ghana should replace lawyers with engineers or copy China's party hierarchy. It is that governments benefit when they value expertise, reward capable administration, and build institutions that can turn policy into results. Ghana can adapt those lessons through stronger technical ministries, merit-based appointments, long-term infrastructure planning, transparent project evaluation, and stronger links between universities, industry, and government. That approach would make expertise a working part of democratic governance.

Chapter 4: The Ghanaian Legal-Political Complex

Ghana's political life is shaped by constitutional government, competitive elections, parliamentary debate, and a lively media environment. These are important democratic strengths. Yet public discussion can become dominated by arguments over who is responsible for national problems, while the technical work of solving them receives less attention. Roads, energy, water, transport, digital infrastructure, and industrial development require sustained planning and specialist knowledge. When political debate does not lead to effective implementation, the result can be delayed projects, weak services, and public frustration.

This chapter examines three related issues: the professional backgrounds that shape governance, the cycle of partisan argument between the National Democratic Congress (NDC) and the New Patriotic Party (NPP), and the institutional difficulties that can leave technical and infrastructure needs unresolved. The argument is not that lawyers or social scientists are unsuited to government. It is that Ghana needs stronger systems for bringing technical expertise into decision-making and for measuring whether public policies are delivered.

3.1 The Dominance of Lawyers and Social Scientists in Governance

Lawyers and social scientists have an important place in Ghanaian public life. Legal training can prepare people to interpret the Constitution, draft legislation, protect due process, and debate rights and responsibilities. Social science disciplines can help leaders understand poverty, public institutions, economic behavior, communities, and the effects of policy. These skills are essential to democratic government.

The concern is that the skills most visible in political debate may not always match the skills needed to design and deliver complex public projects. A lawyer may be well equipped to debate whether a policy is lawful, while a transport engineer may be better placed to assess road design, traffic demand, materials, and maintenance needs. A social scientist may help identify how a project affects communities, while a development economist can assess its expected costs and benefits. Public policy requires these perspectives to work together.

It is also important to distinguish a political impression from a proven fact. The claim that Ghana's governing elite is "dominated" by lawyers and social scientists should be supported by systematic data on the professional backgrounds of presidents, ministers, members of Parliament, senior civil servants, and agency heads. The picture may vary between institutions and across time. Available research on Ghanaian legislators, for example, identifies a range of educational and occupational backgrounds, including business and administration. This means the case for reform need not depend on asserting that every or most political leaders are lawyers. It can focus on whether institutions have enough technical capacity for the responsibilities they hold.

The most useful question is not simply, "What degree does the minister have?" It is: "Does the ministry have a capable team with the knowledge and authority to plan, evaluate, procure,

deliver, and maintain its programmes?" An elected leader need not be a professional engineer to oversee a transport ministry. But that leader should be able to appoint qualified technical staff, ask informed questions, weigh evidence, and explain decisions to the public.

This distinction helps avoid a false choice between legal and technical leadership. Ghana needs constitutional safeguards and legal competence, as well as engineers, scientists, planners, statisticians, economists, procurement specialists, and project managers. Technical professionals also need to understand public finance, community needs, environmental effects, and the legal framework in which projects operate. The goal should be a well-balanced system in which different forms of expertise inform decisions.

A stronger technical presence in government could improve policy in several ways. It can help identify whether a proposed project is technically feasible, whether the design fits local conditions, what the full lifecycle cost will be, and how the asset will be maintained after construction. It can also improve the quality of government data and make public targets more measurable. But expertise is useful only when professional advice can influence decisions and when officials are accountable for how they use it.

3.2 Argumentative Politics, Rhetoric, and the Hyper-Partisan Cycle

Since Ghana returned to multiparty constitutional rule in 1992, the NDC and NPP have alternated in government through competitive elections. This gives voters a meaningful opportunity to reward or remove governments. Elections also encourage parties to explain their records and present alternative policies. Ghana's peaceful transfers of power are an important democratic achievement.

At the same time, the competition between the parties can become intensely adversarial. When one party leaves office, its successor may criticize the previous administration's decisions, debts, contracts, and unfinished projects. The opposition may respond by accusing the government of repeating past mistakes or failing to fulfill campaign promises. Some of these criticisms are legitimate and necessary. The problem arises when political communication centers on blame rather than on a public account of what must happen next.

The cycle can be represented as follows:

Electoral competition
↓
Competing claims about past performance
↓
Public argument over who is responsible
↓
A shifting or weakened focus on project delivery
↓
Delays, interruptions, or limited maintenance
↓
Further public frustration and new accusations

The cycle is reinforced by electoral incentives. Parties need to distinguish themselves from opponents and persuade voters that they can govern better. Announcing a new project can be politically attractive because it gives a government a visible achievement to promote. Completing a project begun by a predecessor may offer less political reward, even if finishing it would be more valuable to the public. When the administration changes, new leaders may review existing contracts or redirect spending. Some reviews are justified, particularly where costs, quality, or procurement raise concerns. But a review that is not completed efficiently can leave projects stalled and communities waiting.

Political debate can also become a contest over history: which administration began a project, which one failed to finish it, who borrowed the money, and who should receive credit for completion. Citizens need those facts to hold governments accountable. However, a debate focused only on assigning responsibility can leave practical questions unanswered: Is the project still necessary? Is it technically sound? What will it cost to complete? Who will fund and supervise it? How will its quality and maintenance be checked?

A more productive form of accountability would answer these questions through a shared, accessible record. For major public projects, government could publish the original objective, approved budget, funding source, contract details, work completed, payments made, revised costs, revised deadlines, and maintenance plan. An incoming administration could review the project, publish its findings, and state clearly whether it will continue, revise, or cancel it—and why.

This approach would not remove political disagreement. It would make disagreement more factual. Parties could still debate priorities, costs, and responsibility, but the public would have a stronger basis for distinguishing evidence from campaign rhetoric. It could also discourage administrations from changing project names or abandoning work simply to distance themselves from their predecessors.

Media and civil society have a role in this process. Ghana's plural media can question government claims, investigate public spending, and give citizens a platform to express concern. Political coverage can also amplify the most dramatic exchanges between party representatives. More reporting on budgets, design decisions, project milestones, technical performance, and local impacts would help balance the daily contest of accusation and rebuttal. Such reporting should remain independent; development journalism is most valuable when it can scrutinize both government plans and government failures.

3.3 The Structural Failure to Resolve Technical and Infrastructural Gaps

Ghana's infrastructure gaps are not only a matter of limited money or unfinished projects. They also reflect a leadership and institutional problem: agencies responsible for complex technical systems may be led by people whose professional training does not prepare them to understand

those systems in depth. When engineering, science, and project-delivery expertise are missing from senior decision-making—or brought in only after priorities have been set—technical advice can become secondary to political messaging, legal argument, and short-term electoral considerations.

The issue is not that lawyers or social scientists are incapable of governing. Their knowledge is valuable in legislation, rights, public administration, economics, and social policy. The concern is that expertise in those fields cannot, by itself, answer the engineering and systems questions involved in designing a power network, planning a transport corridor, expanding water infrastructure, or building a national digital system. These challenges require leaders who can understand how components fit together, identify risks early, assess technical proposals, and plan for the full life of an asset.

When agencies responsible for infrastructure are headed by leaders without substantial technical support or systems knowledge, several weaknesses can follow. A project may be announced before its design and feasibility have been fully tested. Budgets may emphasize construction while ignoring maintenance, operating costs, or connections to other public systems. Procurement choices may focus on immediate price or political visibility without adequately assessing quality, lifecycle costs, or the agency's ability to supervise the work. These decisions can produce delays, cost increases, assets that do not perform as intended, and infrastructure that deteriorates soon after completion.

This is how a gap in leadership expertise can become a gap in public services. If transport planning fails to account for population growth, land use, drainage, and road maintenance, congestion and damaged roads persist. If energy decisions do not properly integrate generation, transmission, distribution, and demand, new investments may fail to deliver reliable power where it is needed. If water projects are planned without considering treatment, distribution, maintenance, and local demand, infrastructure may exist without providing dependable service.

The problem becomes more serious when political debate rewards announcing projects more than completing and maintaining them. Leaders may emphasize the launch of a new road, bridge, power plant, or digital programme because it offers an immediate political message. The less visible work—feasibility studies, engineering design, asset maintenance, quality control, and coordination between agencies—can receive less attention. In that environment, technical professionals may be asked to implement decisions they had little influence in shaping.

A further weakness is the limited use of systems thinking. Infrastructure is interconnected. A road affects trade, public transport, housing, drainage, and access to schools and clinics. A power project depends on fuel supply, transmission lines, distribution networks, tariffs, and maintenance. Digital infrastructure depends on electricity, connectivity, data standards, cybersecurity, trained staff, and long-term operating budgets. Leaders who approach these issues as isolated projects may approve investments that look impressive on paper but do not work well as part of a larger system.

Ghana's public investment assessments have identified implementation problems, including delays, cost overruns, and arrears, despite improvements to formal project-planning procedures. This gap between having rules and applying them shows why technical leadership matters. Procedures cannot ensure good outcomes if agencies lack qualified staff, project information is weak, or leaders do not insist on sound appraisal and follow-through.[1]

The argument of this chapter is that Ghana should place engineers, scientists, planners, and other technical professionals in stronger leadership and decision-making roles within agencies responsible for infrastructure and technology. These professionals should help set priorities, assess project readiness, oversee technical standards, and plan maintenance—not merely advise after political decisions have already been made. Where elected officials or ministers come from legal, social science, or other backgrounds, they should be supported by senior technical leaders with the authority to challenge weak designs and unrealistic schedules.

This is not a call to reserve government for engineers. Technical credentials do not guarantee integrity, good judgment, or concern for citizens. Infrastructure decisions also involve law, finance, environmental protection, community needs, and political accountability. The goal is to correct an imbalance: technical agencies should be led and guided by people equipped to understand the systems they oversee, working alongside legal, economic, and social specialists.

Ghana can make that change through transparent qualification standards for senior technical posts, stronger professional career paths in the civil service, and multidisciplinary project teams. Major infrastructure programmes should require independent technical review before approval. Agencies should publish project costs, timelines, performance measures, and maintenance plans. When a project is delayed or changed, the responsible institution should explain why and show what corrective action it is taking.

Without stronger technical leadership, Ghana risks repeating a cycle in which political leaders announce ambitious plans, agencies struggle to translate them into workable projects, and parties later blame one another for poor results. Giving engineers and scientists a meaningful role in agency leadership would not solve every infrastructure problem. It would, however, improve the chances that projects are technically sound, coordinated with wider systems, and built to serve the public over time.

The central reform is therefore to connect political authority to technical competence. Ghana's infrastructure agencies need leaders who can recognize the engineering and systems challenges before decisions are finalized, insist on evidence, and remain responsible for delivery and maintenance. Political leaders would still set public priorities and answer to voters, but those priorities should be shaped and carried out by institutions with the expertise to make them work.

Moving from a Legal-Political Debate to a Delivery State

Ghana does not need less law, less debate, or fewer political parties. It needs stronger links between political decision-making and technical implementation. Legal frameworks can protect public funds and establish consistent standards. Parliamentary debate can test policy choices. Elections can give voters a way to hold leaders responsible. These institutions work best when they are supported by competent public agencies and reliable project information.

A practical reform agenda would include:

1. **Build multidisciplinary teams.** Ministries responsible for infrastructure, energy, technology, agriculture, and health should have strong professional teams that include technical, financial, legal, and community expertise.
2. **Require project readiness.** Major projects should not move into construction until designs, costs, financing, procurement, land, and maintenance needs have been assessed.
3. **Protect continuity while allowing review.** An incoming government should be able to scrutinize projects, but it should publish its findings and decisions promptly so that necessary work is not left in indefinite limbo.
4. **Publish project information.** Budgets, contract details, schedules, progress, changes, and maintenance plans should be accessible in clear language.
5. **Measure outcomes.** Government should report whether investments improve travel times, access to reliable power and water, school and clinic services, productivity, and local employment.
6. **Strengthen professional public service.** Technical agencies need career staff, training, and institutional memory so that expertise is not lost when political leadership changes.

The Ghanaian legal-political complex is not a problem because lawyers argue or because political parties compete. These are normal parts of a constitutional democracy. The problem is when argument becomes a substitute for implementation, when party competition prevents continuity, or when professional advice is too weak to shape public decisions.

Ghana can retain its democratic strengths while becoming more technically capable. The aim should be a political system where leaders of different backgrounds work with skilled teams, parties debate policy against a shared public record, and citizens can judge governments by services delivered and assets maintained. That is how political argument can become a route to accountability and development rather than a recurring cycle of blame.

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Chapter 5: Media Systems and Public Discourse: Constructive Alignment and Political Rhetoric

The media influence what citizens know, what governments are questioned about, and which public problems receive sustained attention. In a country pursuing industrialization and infrastructure development, reporting on technology, agriculture, energy, manufacturing, public finance, and project delivery can help people understand both the opportunities and the obstacles. Media coverage can also hold leaders accountable for missed targets, poor decisions, and misuse of public funds.

China and Ghana organize their media systems differently. China's state media regularly gives prominence to national plans, industrial development, infrastructure, and technological achievements. Ghana has a more plural media environment, with private and public outlets, vigorous political debate, and opportunities for investigative reporting. That openness is a democratic strength. Yet political commentary and party competition can dominate coverage, leaving technical development issues less visible.

The comparison should not be simplified into "China focuses on development while Ghana focuses on politics." China's media coverage operates under extensive party-state direction, which can restrict reporting that challenges official accounts. Ghana's media can report critically on government, although commercial pressures, political affiliations, and partisan competition can affect which stories receive attention. Each system has strengths and limitations. Ghana's task is to deepen development reporting while preserving independent journalism and public scrutiny.

China's state-led media environment	**Ghana's plural media environment**
Gives regular prominence to official plans and development achievements	Gives substantial attention to political competition, public debate, and accountability
Can maintain a consistent narrative around national priorities	Allows a wider range of voices and criticism of government
Operates under party-state direction and censorship	Can be affected by partisan ownership, political affiliations, and commercial pressures
May underreport failures or viewpoints that challenge official accounts	Can devote disproportionate attention to political disputes and personalities

4.1 Development-Oriented Media in China: Prioritizing Technical and Economic Focus

Chinese state media frequently reports on industrial policy, major infrastructure, scientific research, urban development, and economic targets. This coverage can keep national programmes visible and reinforce the idea that development is a long-term undertaking. Stories about manufacturing, transport, energy, digital systems, and technology can help the public understand the sectors the government wants to expand.

A consistent development focus can have practical benefits. It can explain what a national plan is intended to achieve, report progress on major projects, introduce new technologies, and draw attention to economic sectors that may not otherwise receive much public discussion. Regular coverage can also help create a shared vocabulary around productivity, innovation, infrastructure, and industrial development.

However, "development-oriented" should not be confused with fully independent or comprehensive reporting. China's media operate under party-state direction, and journalists face restrictions on reporting that contradicts official priorities or challenges the authorities. This affects the public record. Reports may highlight achievements while giving less attention to project failures, local debt, displacement, environmental effects, or the experiences of people who disagree with official policies. Information that is not permitted to circulate openly cannot receive the same public testing as information reported in a more plural media system.

That limitation matters because development depends on accurate feedback. A government needs to know whether a project is over budget, whether a policy is failing, whether public services are reaching intended communities, and whether local officials are reporting reliable results. If journalists and citizens cannot freely raise these questions, officials may receive an incomplete picture. A media system can promote a national goal, but it also needs room to investigate whether the goal is being met and at what cost.

Ghana should therefore distinguish between two elements of China's media model. It can learn from the attention given to technical and economic topics, long-term plans, and measurable achievements. It should not imitate the restrictions that limit independent reporting. Development reporting serves the public best when it can cover progress and failure with equal seriousness.

4.2 Partisan Media Outlets in Ghana: Escalating Political Friction and Scandals

Ghana's media landscape includes radio, television, newspapers, online publications, and social media. This variety gives citizens many ways to follow politics, hear competing views, question public officials, and learn about problems in their communities. A free and plural media environment is central to democratic accountability.

At the same time, party competition between the NDC and NPP is a prominent feature of public debate. Political talk shows, interviews, press conferences, and commentary can revolve around accusations, rebuttals, scandals, and disputes over which administration deserves credit or blame. Political news is important: citizens need to know what parties propose and how governments perform. But when political exchanges dominate airtime, audiences may hear extensive argument about responsibility without receiving enough information about practical solutions.

This pattern can affect technical subjects. A report about a delayed road project, for example, may focus on which party began the work or which government caused the delay. Those questions matter, but they do not replace the need to explain the engineering status, funding shortfall, contract changes, land issues, completion cost, and safety risks. Similarly, coverage of power shortages can become a partisan exchange over past administrations instead of examining generation, transmission, distribution, fuel, demand, and maintenance as parts of one system.

Research on Ghana's media has described a politicized landscape while also recognizing the continuing watchdog role played by journalists. Studies of election coverage have found that the two major parties often receive more prominence than smaller parties, and that reporting practices can be affected by political bias and professional pressures. These findings do not mean Ghana's media are simply partisan instruments. They point to a more complicated environment in which independent scrutiny coexists with commercial competition and political influence.

Political talk and scandal coverage can also be attractive to media organizations because conflict is immediate and easy to present. Technical reporting takes time. It may require specialist knowledge, access to documents, data analysis, and consultation with engineers, economists, researchers, and affected communities. Newsrooms operating under financial pressure may have limited resources for this work. Politicians can supply ready-made statements, while technical agencies may provide complex or delayed information.

The result can be a gap between the amount of political discussion and the amount of public understanding. Citizens may hear the same accusation repeated by different guests, while receiving little explanation of how a public investment is designed, funded, or evaluated. Political coverage is not itself the problem; the problem is when it crowds out reporting that helps people assess the substance and consequences of policy.

4.3 Redefining Public Discourse for National Development

Ghana does not need a less critical media. It needs public discussion that combines political accountability with deeper reporting on how the country's systems work. Development journalism should explain plans, costs, technical choices, progress, failures, and impacts. It should make complex subjects understandable without becoming government promotion.

For major projects, journalists can ask a consistent set of questions:

- What public problem is the project intended to solve?

- What alternatives were considered, and why was this approach selected?
- What is the full cost, including operations and maintenance?
- What is the funding source, and is financing secured through completion?
- What milestones have been met, and what remains unfinished?
- What do independent experts and affected communities say?
- How will the government measure whether the project is working?

These questions make accountability more concrete. They move coverage beyond who announced a project or who claims credit and toward whether the project is useful, affordable, well built, and maintained. They also help distinguish between a genuine technical challenge, a funding problem, weak management, and political interference.

News organizations can strengthen this work by developing specialist reporting on energy, agriculture, public finance, infrastructure, manufacturing, science, health, and digital technology. Journalists do not need to become engineers or economists, but they can build enough subject knowledge to recognize missing evidence and ask informed questions. Universities, professional associations, research centers, and civil society organizations can help explain data and connect reporters with independent specialists.

Government agencies also have responsibilities. They should publish usable information about public projects, budgets, contracts, schedules, and performance. Technical reports should be available in forms that journalists and citizens can understand. Agencies should provide timely responses to questions, including when a project is delayed or changed. Better access to information does not guarantee better coverage, but without reliable information, reporting becomes more dependent on political claims.

Public broadcasters and private outlets can create regular programmes that explain national development issues through evidence and practical examples. A discussion of electricity, for instance, could examine generation, transmission, distribution, household costs, and reliability rather than limiting itself to party accusations. A programme on agriculture could track yields, storage, irrigation, transport, market access, and food prices. Coverage of infrastructure could follow projects over time, including their maintenance after construction.

Editorial independence must remain central. Development journalism should be free to question government priorities, expose corruption, report community opposition, and examine environmental or social costs. Its purpose is not to secure agreement with government plans. It is to equip citizens to judge those plans and their results. Without independence, “development communication” can become public relations. Without technical depth, political debate can become repetitive and shallow. Ghana needs both freedom and expertise in its public conversation.

The media can also help build continuity across electoral cycles. When reporting consistently tracks the same national priorities—such as transport access, reliable power, clean water,

agricultural productivity, and digital connectivity—citizens can compare promises and results across successive governments. The focus shifts from whether a project belongs to one party or another to whether it meets a public need and performs over time.

The broader lesson is that media systems shape the information environment in which development decisions are made. China's state-led media demonstrate how sustained attention can be directed toward national plans and industrial goals, but restrictions on independent reporting limit scrutiny and feedback. Ghana's plural media protect open debate and can hold governments accountable, but partisan conflict can consume attention that could also be devoted to technical questions and long-term outcomes.

Ghana should preserve its media freedoms while widening the range and depth of public discussion. A strong developmental media culture would report on politics and also investigate the systems that determine whether public commitments become working infrastructure, productive industries, and dependable services. That would make journalism a stronger partner in national development precisely because it remains independent of government and political parties.

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Chapter 6: Concrete Outcomes of Technocratic Leadership: Tech Hubs and AI Model Cities

China's technology hubs and large infrastructure projects are often presented as proof that technocratic leadership produces rapid development. They do show what can happen when government priorities, infrastructure investment, technical talent, and business activity reinforce one another. But leadership credentials alone did not build these places. Their growth also depended on policy choices, access to investment and markets, local government action, skilled workers, entrepreneurial firms, and years of experimentation.

Shenzhen and Xiongan illustrate two different approaches. Shenzhen grew into a major technology and manufacturing center through economic opening, industrial clustering, and a dense network of suppliers and firms. Xiongan is a planned new area where digital planning tools are being used alongside physical construction. The two cases offer Ghana useful lessons about how government can enable innovation and plan infrastructure. They also show why Ghana should evaluate projects by what they deliver, rather than by their scale or technological image.

5.1 Shenzhen: From a Small Coastal Settlement to a Technology Powerhouse

Shenzhen's transformation began with a national policy decision. In 1980, it became one of China's first special economic zones, giving the area room to test policies intended to attract investment, expand trade, and encourage manufacturing. Its location near Hong Kong offered access to capital, markets, logistics, and international business networks. Government investment in transport, power, communications, and industrial sites helped create conditions in which companies could grow.

Shenzhen did not begin with a world-class technology sector. The city's own historical account describes its early electronics industry as having a weak industrial base and limited technical capacity. In the 1980s, local authorities planned industrial areas and encouraged electronics firms to cluster. Over time, this concentration helped create a supply network for components, manufacturing, repair, and distribution. Huaqiangbei became a major electronics market, connecting suppliers, traders, designers, manufacturers, and customers.[1]

This clustering produced an important advantage: companies could find many of the parts, skills, services, and production partners they needed nearby. In hardware industries, this can shorten the time between designing a product and producing a working version. Firms can test components, adjust designs, and arrange manufacturing without rebuilding a supply chain from scratch each time. The result was an ecosystem that supported both established companies and new ventures.

Shenzhen became home to major technology companies, including Huawei, Tencent, and DJI. Their success is part of a broader development story: the city moved from low-cost manufacturing and assembly toward more sophisticated design, engineering, branding, and research. The World Intellectual Property Organization describes Shenzhen's technological catch-up in stages: participation in global production networks, accumulation of technical knowledge and manufacturing capability, and increasing indigenous innovation.[2]

Shenzhen and Silicon Valley

Shenzhen is often called "China's Silicon Valley," but the comparison needs qualification. Silicon Valley in California became a leading center for software, semiconductors, venture capital, research universities, and high-growth technology companies. Shenzhen's distinctive strength has been its connection between hardware design, electronics suppliers, manufacturing, and rapid product development. The cities are both major innovation centers, but they developed different strengths and through different histories.

China did not create Shenzhen by simply copying Silicon Valley. It built a local ecosystem suited to its own conditions. Special economic zone policies opened the area to investment and experimentation. Manufacturing and export networks connected local businesses to international markets. Over time, industrial experience and supplier density helped companies move into more advanced products and innovation. Shenzhen's growth involved government planning, but it also depended on firms, workers, investors, consumers, and competition.

This is an important distinction for Ghana. A technology hub cannot be created simply by naming a district "Ghana's Silicon Valley" or constructing an office park. An effective hub needs reliable power and internet, transport, technical education, access to finance, links to universities, supportive regulation, skilled workers, and customers. For hardware and manufacturing, it also needs suppliers, testing facilities, production skills, logistics, and consistent demand.

Ghana could build technology clusters around areas where it has practical opportunities, such as financial technology, agricultural services, health technology, logistics, software, and selected manufacturing. The aim should be to connect firms to real problems and markets, not to imitate Shenzhen's appearance. A Ghanaian technology hub should be judged by whether it helps businesses develop useful products, hire skilled workers, grow exports, or improve public services.

5.2 Xiongan New Area: Digital Planning and the Limits of "AI City" Claims

Xiongan New Area, announced in 2017 in Hebei Province, is a long-term national project intended to develop a new urban center and accommodate some functions relocated from Beijing. Its master plan includes transport, public services, ecology, high-tech industries, and the

development of a “smart new city.” Chinese government descriptions call for intelligent infrastructure, a digital city, and integrated systems for urban management.[3]

Xiongan has also been associated with digital twins and City Information Modeling platforms. These tools can combine digital maps and models of buildings, roads, utilities, and other urban systems. Used well, they can help planners coordinate information across agencies, compare design options, and identify conflicts before construction. For example, a shared model may help planners see whether a proposed road conflicts with underground utilities or whether transport and land-use plans fit together.

Official Xiongan reporting describes digital roads, a city computing center, and digital models of buildings that are being developed alongside the physical city. The China Academy of Urban Planning and Design describes a planning platform that connects information on transport, energy, water, geology, environmental protection, and urban design.[4] These are substantial planning tools. However, descriptions of the project should not be stretched into the claim that every building and utility is managed by a complete, real-time AI simulation that can accurately predict all city operations.

A digital twin is useful only to the extent that its underlying data are current, reliable, and connected to real operating systems. Some models support planning and design; others may be updated periodically rather than continuously. AI may be used in particular applications, but that does not mean the whole city operates autonomously. It is more accurate to say that Xiongan is developing digital planning and urban-management systems, including digital models and smart-city infrastructure, than to claim that it already has a perfect, real-time virtual replica of the entire city.

The broader lesson is that digital tools can improve urban planning when they support real decisions. Before construction, planners can use data to coordinate roads, water networks, power, drainage, and public services. Once a city is operating, sensors and digital platforms may help agencies monitor traffic, energy use, or infrastructure condition. But technology does not remove the need for sound engineering, public consultation, data protection, skilled staff, and ongoing maintenance.

For Ghana, the most useful lesson is to build good information systems around infrastructure. Mapping roads, drains, water pipes, power networks, public buildings, and land use can help prevent costly conflicts and make maintenance more effective. A city does not need an expensive AI platform to benefit from accurate maps and coordinated planning. Ghanaian cities can start with practical tools that agencies can maintain, update, and share.

5.3 Infrastructure Execution as a Direct Product of Technical Leadership

Technically trained leaders can contribute to infrastructure delivery by understanding engineering constraints, recognizing risks, asking informed questions, and valuing data and long-term maintenance. A leader with relevant experience may be better prepared to examine whether

a design is feasible, whether agencies are coordinating, or whether a project's cost estimate includes all necessary work.

But infrastructure execution is not a direct or automatic product of the leader's degree. Engineers and scientists can make poor decisions, and non-technical leaders can govern effectively when they rely on strong professional teams. Large projects require a full chain of capability: clear priorities, feasibility studies, financing, land readiness, procurement, engineering design, construction supervision, community engagement, maintenance, and independent evaluation.

The quality of that chain matters more than the label attached to a leader. A government may have technically trained ministers and still deliver poor results if agencies are understaffed, contracts are badly designed, budgets are unreliable, or project oversight is weak. Conversely, a minister without an engineering background can oversee effective infrastructure if the ministry has qualified experts with the authority to challenge weak proposals and report problems honestly.

Shenzhen and Xiongan show different ways government can influence development. Shenzhen's growth involved policy experimentation, infrastructure, investment, and a dense production ecosystem that allowed firms to learn and expand. Xiongan illustrates an effort to coordinate urban planning with digital tools and long-term national objectives. Neither case proves that centralized direction or technocratic leadership alone guarantees success. Each depended on institutions and people beyond the highest political offices.

Ghana can adapt several practical principles:

- **Build capability before branding.** Support real firms, skills, suppliers, and research links before declaring a location a technology hub.
- **Plan infrastructure as connected systems.** Coordinate transport, power, water, drainage, housing, digital networks, and land use.
- **Use digital tools for defined tasks.** Adopt mapping, asset registers, and planning models that solve specific problems and can be maintained by local institutions.
- **Fund maintenance from the beginning.** Include operating and maintenance costs in project appraisal, not as an afterthought.
- **Give technical professionals influence and accountability.** Engineers, scientists, planners, and project managers should have meaningful roles in project design and oversight, with transparent standards for performance.
- **Measure public value.** Assess projects by reliability, access, productivity, safety, affordability, and local economic impact—not only by construction size or technology content.

The most transferable lesson is that technology hubs and modern infrastructure emerge from sustained coordination. Technical leadership can help governments understand complex projects and make better choices, but institutions must turn that knowledge into reliable execution. For

Ghana, the goal should be to build practical ecosystems and infrastructure that solve local problems, connect businesses to markets, and provide dependable services over time.

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Chapter 7: A Reform Agenda for Ghana: Institutional and Educational Realignment

Ghana's infrastructure and technology challenges call for a stronger technical presence in political leadership and public administration. Engineers, scientists, development planners, economists, and experienced project managers should have greater influence over the institutions responsible for roads, energy, water, housing, agriculture, manufacturing, communications, and digital services.

This is a case for changing the balance of expertise in government, not for excluding lawyers or social scientists. Legal and social knowledge remains essential to constitutional government, public finance, rights, regulation, and community development. But Ghana cannot close technical gaps if its agencies lack leaders who understand the systems they are expected to build and manage. The aim should be a democratic government in which elected leaders set national priorities, qualified technical teams shape workable solutions, and Parliament, the media, auditors, and citizens can scrutinize results.

China's experience provides one reference point. Since the reform era, technical education and administrative performance have carried greater weight in parts of its governing system, alongside party hierarchy and political loyalty. That experience shows how expertise can be connected to national planning and implementation. It does not prove that engineers alone create development, nor does it require Ghana to copy China's political system. Ghana should adapt the emphasis on technical capacity to its own constitutional democracy.

6.1 Integrating High-Level Technocrats into Cabinet and Policy Design

Technical expertise should enter the policy process before major decisions are finalized. Too often, public debate focuses on a project after it has been announced, when the key choices about design, financing, location, and delivery may already have been made. A stronger system would bring qualified professionals into national priority-setting, project selection, budgeting, and oversight from the beginning.

Build multidisciplinary leadership teams

Technical ministries should be led and supported by teams with relevant professional experience. The Ministry responsible for roads and transport needs access to civil and transport engineers, urban planners, economists, environmental specialists, procurement professionals, and project managers. Energy policy requires expertise in generation, transmission, distribution, fuel systems, regulation, finance, and demand forecasting. Digital policy requires knowledge of telecommunications, software, cybersecurity, data governance, and skills development.

A minister does not need to hold a technical degree to lead effectively. But the minister should be able to appoint qualified advisers, understand the main risks and trade-offs, and ensure that

professional advice is heard. Senior technical officials should have clear responsibilities and sufficient authority to question unrealistic schedules, weak project designs, or funding plans that cannot support completion and maintenance.

Ghana can make these appointments more transparent by setting clear qualification and experience standards for senior professional positions. Selection should consider relevant work, delivery experience, ethical conduct, and the ability to work across disciplines—not just academic credentials. The goal is to build agencies that can retain knowledge and deliver policy through changes in ministers and governments.

Give technical appraisal a formal role

Major infrastructure and technology projects should pass through a consistent appraisal process before they receive approval and funding. The process should assess whether the project addresses a defined public need, whether the proposed design is feasible, what alternatives exist, what the full cost will be, and how the asset will be operated and maintained.

Technical appraisal should be connected to budget decisions. A project should not be treated as ready merely because it appears in a manifesto or has received political approval. Agencies should establish whether land, designs, permits, financing, procurement, and staffing are in place before construction begins. Where circumstances change, officials should explain what has changed and how the project will be adjusted.

Ghana has taken steps to strengthen public investment rules and project procedures. Recent IMF assessments report improvements in the design of public investment management institutions, while noting that implementation challenges remain, including delays, cost overruns, and arrears. This gap between stronger rules and uneven follow-through shows why reforms need capable staff, reliable information, and leadership that insists on implementation.[1]

Strengthen the technical public service

Ghana's technical capacity should not depend entirely on the expertise of individual ministers or temporary advisers. Civil service agencies need experienced career professionals who can provide institutional memory, oversee contractors, evaluate project performance, and advise successive governments.

Recruitment and promotion should make technical roles attractive. This means competitive compensation, professional development, clear promotion paths, and opportunities to work on significant national projects. Agencies should be able to recruit specialists in engineering, science, data analysis, project management, and public investment. They should also train existing staff and support cooperation between universities, research institutions, local businesses, and government.

The purpose is not to privilege STEM graduates regardless of ability. It is to make sure that public agencies responsible for technical systems have enough qualified people in positions where they can influence decisions and delivery.

Create continuity for national priorities

Long-term national planning should continue across changes of government. Ghana could establish a rolling infrastructure and technology plan covering 20 to 30 years, with shorter implementation stages that can be reviewed and updated. The plan should identify priority networks and services, funding needs, expected outcomes, maintenance responsibilities, and the sequence in which projects should proceed.

A long-term plan should not be a rigid list of projects that no government can change. Economic conditions, technology, and public needs evolve. Instead, changes should be supported by published evidence and explained to Parliament and the public. A new administration should be able to review inherited projects, but it should complete that review promptly and state whether each project will continue, change, or stop—and why.

Cross-party parliamentary review can help establish continuity without removing political choice. Independent technical bodies, professional associations, and auditors can provide evidence on costs, quality, and performance. This would make it harder for projects to be abandoned simply because they were associated with a previous administration.

6.2 Shifting from Legal Precedent to Engineering Innovation

Ghana's legal institutions are essential. The Constitution, courts, Parliament, and administrative law protect rights, establish public authority, and set rules for government action. The reform Ghana needs is not a move away from law. It is a change in the balance of public attention and institutional influence so that legal reasoning is complemented by engineering, scientific, economic, and systems-based thinking.

Legal training is valuable when government must interpret laws, protect contracts, manage disputes, and ensure due process. But legal analysis cannot answer every question involved in building a transport system, improving agricultural productivity, or modernizing a power network. These tasks require technical design, quantitative evaluation, and ongoing operational decisions.

Move from announcements to systems design

Engineering innovation begins with a clear problem. Before a government selects a project or technology, it should define the service gap it wants to close. Is the objective to reduce travel time, improve access to markets, increase the reliability of electricity, expand safe water, or help firms reach customers? Once the objective is defined, professionals can compare options and assess the costs, risks, and likely benefits.

This approach discourages prestige projects that look impressive but do not solve the most urgent problem. It also encourages governments to treat infrastructure as an interconnected system. A road interacts with public transport, land use, drainage, and commerce. A power plant depends on transmission lines, fuel supply, distribution networks, and demand. A digital public service depends on connectivity, electricity, software, cybersecurity, trained staff, and data protection.

Ghana should require agencies to evaluate these connections before committing public resources. Projects should be assessed not only on whether they can be built but on whether they can operate, connect to other services, and be maintained over their useful life.

Reward measurable public results

Governments need clear ways to evaluate whether a policy has worked. A project's success should not be measured only by the amount spent, the number of contracts signed, or whether a new facility was opened. It should be measured by the public service it provides.

Examples include whether a road reduces journey times and remains safe, whether a water system supplies reliable and clean water, whether an energy project improves service reliability, and whether a digital platform is accessible, secure, and consistently used. Agencies should establish baseline measures before work begins and publish progress against them.

Independent technical reviews can help. Ghana can use professional bodies, universities, auditors, and qualified private-sector specialists to assess project designs, construction quality, and performance. Their findings should be public, and agencies should be required to respond when reviews identify serious problems.

Connect education to the problems government must solve

Ghana's educational system should prepare more people for work in engineering, science, applied technology, manufacturing, agriculture, construction, public health, and data analysis. That requires more than expanding university places. Students need strong foundational education, practical training, apprenticeships, laboratories, research opportunities, and links to employers.

Government can strengthen partnerships between universities and industry so that research addresses local needs and businesses have access to skilled graduates. Technical and vocational education should be valued as a route into skilled employment and entrepreneurship. Existing public servants should also have opportunities to update their skills as technologies and professional standards change.

This educational realignment would widen the pool of qualified professionals available for public leadership. It would also support private firms that can design, build, maintain, and export goods and services. A country's technical capacity is not limited to the government; it also depends on businesses, educators, workers, and research institutions.

Use technology where it solves a defined problem

Modern technology can support better public services, but it should not be adopted simply because it is new. Ghana should evaluate digital systems, artificial intelligence, sensors, and automation based on whether they meet a public need, whether agencies can maintain them, and whether their costs and risks are understood.

For example, accurate digital maps of roads, drainage, water systems, and public buildings may help agencies plan maintenance and coordinate construction. Data platforms can help track project schedules and budgets. These tools can improve decision-making, but they require reliable data, trained staff, clear responsibility, and safeguards for privacy and security.

Technology should support professional judgment, not replace accountability. A digital system can produce forecasts or flag problems, but public officials remain responsible for how its recommendations are used. Citizens should be able to understand the purpose of major systems that affect their access to services or use of public data.

A Practical Reform Sequence

A reform agenda can begin with manageable steps and expand as agencies build capacity:

1. **Map technical leadership gaps** across ministries, departments, and agencies responsible for infrastructure, technology, energy, agriculture, and industrial development.
2. **Set professional standards** for senior technical appointments, using relevant qualifications, work experience, delivery skills, and transparent selection processes.
3. **Require readiness reviews** before major projects are funded, including feasibility, full lifecycle costs, land and permit status, procurement, financing, and maintenance.
4. **Publish project records** with budgets, contracts, schedules, progress, revisions, and measurable outcomes in accessible formats.
5. **Establish cross-party continuity mechanisms** for long-term national infrastructure priorities, with public explanations for significant changes.
6. **Strengthen technical education and public-service training** through universities, technical institutes, apprenticeships, research partnerships, and continuing professional development.
7. **Evaluate results independently** and use the findings to improve future policies and projects.

The core principle is that political leadership must be matched by professional capacity. Engineers, scientists, development planners, and economists should have a stronger role in setting priorities, designing policies, leading technical agencies, and overseeing delivery. Lawyers and social scientists should remain part of these teams, bringing essential expertise in law, public administration, institutions, communities, and social impacts.

Ghana does not need to choose between democratic politics and technical governance. It needs a democracy with stronger technical institutions: one where elected leaders make choices openly, experts help ensure those choices are feasible, public agencies carry them out professionally, and citizens can judge the results. That is the institutional realignment required to turn national ambition into durable infrastructure, technological capacity, and improved public services.

Source

[1] International Monetary Fund, Internal Evaluation of Public Investment Management Assessment Capacity Development.